

5.3.2 Definite & Indefinite Integrals

Motivation: In the last section we saw that antiderivatives are important for computing definite integrals. We would like some formal notation for the most general antiderivative of a function.

Definition: We use an **indefinite integral** of f , written as $\int f(x)dx$, to indicate the most general antiderivative of f .

Example 1: Find each of the following.

a) Find $\int x^2 dx$.

We can easily see that $\int x^2 dx = \frac{1}{3}x^3 + C$

b) Find $\int_0^3 x^2 dx$

We note that $f(x) = x^2$ is a continuous function on the interval $[0,3]$. Therefore by the FTCP2 we know that:

$$\int_0^3 x^2 dx = \left. \frac{1}{3}x^3 \right|_0^3 = \frac{1}{3}(3)^3 - \frac{1}{3}(0)^3 = 9 - 0 = 9$$

Note: VERY IMPORTANTLY, we see that an indefinite integral represents a family of functions, while a definite integral represents an area

Properties of Indefinite Integrals (Antiderivatives)

(1) $\int c \cdot f(x) dx = c \cdot \int f(x) dx$ (constant multiple rule in reverse)

(2) $\int [f(x) \pm g(x)] dx = \int f(x) dx \pm \int g(x) dx$ (sum & difference rule in reverse)

(3) $\int f(x)g(x) dx \neq \int f(x) dx \cdot \int g(x) dx$ (you *cannot* take the antiderivative of each piece of a product) This is *NOT* a derivative rule in reverse.

In the online textbook there is a link to what is called the “Table of Integrals” and it is very important to know ALL of these formulas for Calculus I, II, & III. All of these formulas simply represent “differentiation in reverse”.

General Strategies for Finding Antiderivatives

(1) Use a derivative rule in reverse.

(2) Use Algebra to simplify your expression and then use (1).

Note: We will see here that “Algebra” includes things such as simplifying expressions, factoring, using trig identities, and a variety of other simplification techniques.

Note: The list above is by no means complete. We will continue to add to this list throughout the remainder of Calculus I and during Calculus II.

Example 2: Evaluate $\int \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}} dx$.

This is simply a derivative rule in reverse and so this question is easy to answer: $\int \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}} dx = \sin^{-1}(x) + C$

Note: In Examples 3 – 6 (below) a variety of different “Algebra” techniques are shown.

Example 3: Evaluate $\int \frac{x^3 - 16x^4 \sec^2(x) + 8}{8x^4} dx$. (*Split Fractions*)

$$\begin{aligned} \int \frac{x^3 - 16x^4 \sec^2(x) + 8}{8x^4} dx &= \int \left[\frac{x^3}{8x^4} - \frac{16x^4 \sec^2(x)}{8x^4} + \frac{8}{8x^4} \right] dx = \int \left[\frac{1}{8x} - 2\sec^2(x) + \frac{8}{8x^4} \right] dx \\ &= \int \left[\frac{1}{8} \cdot \frac{1}{x} - 2\sec^2(x) + x^{-4} \right] dx \\ &= \int \frac{1}{8} \cdot \frac{1}{x} dx - \int 2\sec^2(x) dx + \int x^{-4} dx \\ &= \frac{1}{8} \int \frac{1}{x} dx - 2 \int \sec(x) dx + \int x^{-4} dx \\ &= \left(\frac{1}{8} \ln|x| + C_1 \right) - (2 \tan(x) + C_2) - \left(\frac{1}{3} x^{-3} + C_3 \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{8} \ln|x| - 2 \tan(x) - \frac{1}{3} x^{-3} + C \end{aligned}$$

Note: When working through most problems we will skip some of the detail we used in the example above. Often we will skip from line 3 to the solution in a single step when possible. It is expected that you should understand and be able to visualize the intermediate steps even though we will not perform them.

Example 4: Evaluate $\int_1^2 \frac{x^2 + 4x + 3}{x + 1} dx$. (*Factoring*)

This is a definite integral so we are looking for an area.

Since the function $f(x) = \frac{x^2 + 4x + 3}{x + 1}$ is continuous on $[1, 2]$, so by the FTC2 we know that:

$$\begin{aligned} \int_1^2 \frac{x^2 + 4x + 3}{x + 1} dx &= \int_1^2 \frac{(x + 3)(x + 1)}{x + 1} dx = \int_1^2 (x + 3) dx = \left(\frac{1}{2} x^2 + 3x \right) \Big|_1^2 \\ &= \left[\frac{1}{2} (2)^2 + 3(2) \right] - \left[\frac{1}{2} (1)^2 + 3(1) \right] \\ &= [2 + 6] - \left[\frac{1}{2} + 3 \right] \\ &= 4.5 \end{aligned}$$

Example 5: Evaluate $\int \frac{x^2 + 10}{x^2 + 1} dx$. (*Split fractions cleverly*)

$$\int \frac{x^2 + 10}{x^2 + 1} dx = \int \frac{x^2 + 1 + 9}{x^2 + 1} dx = \int \left[\frac{x^2 + 1}{x^2 + 1} + \frac{9}{x^2 + 1} \right] dx = \int \left[1 + \frac{9}{x^2 + 1} \right] dx = x + 9 \tan^{-1}(x) + C$$

Example 6: Evaluate $\int_{-1}^0 \frac{x^2}{x^2 + 1} dx$. (*Introduce a “fancy 0”*)

This is a definite integral so we are looking for an area.

Since the function $f(x) = \frac{x^2}{x^2 + 1}$ is continuous on $[0, -1]$, so by the FTC2 we know that:

$$\begin{aligned} \int_{-1}^0 \frac{x^2}{x^2 + 1} dx &= \int_{-1}^0 \frac{x^2 + 1 - 1}{x^2 + 1} dx = \int_{-1}^0 \left[\frac{x^2 + 1}{x^2 + 1} - \frac{1}{x^2 + 1} \right] dx = \int_{-1}^0 \left[1 - \frac{1}{x^2 + 1} \right] dx = \left[x - \tan^{-1}(x) \right]_{-1}^0 \\ &= [0 - \tan^{-1}(0)] - [1 - \tan^{-1}(-1)] = [0 - 0] - \left[1 - \left(-\frac{\pi}{4} \right) \right] \\ &= 1 - \frac{\pi}{4} \end{aligned}$$

Important Trig. Identities to Know:

- Pythagorean Identities
 - $\sin^2(x) + \cos^2(x) = 1$
 - $\tan^2(x) + 1 = \sec^2(x)$
 - $1 + \cot^2(x) = \csc^2(x)$
- Double/Half Angle Identities
 - $\sin(2x) = 2\sin(x)\cos(x)$
 - $\cos(2x) = \cos^2(x) - \sin^2(x)$

Example 7: Evaluate $\int \sec(x)[\sec(x) + \tan(x)]dx$.

$$\int \sec(x)[\sec(x) + \tan(x)]dx = \int [\sec^2(x) + \sec(x)\tan(x)]dx = \tan(x) + \sec(x) + C$$

Example 8: Evaluate $\int \tan^2(x)dx$.

$$\int \tan^2(x)dx = \int [\sec^2(x) - 1]dx = \tan(x) - x + C$$

Example 9: Evaluate $\int_{\pi/4}^{\pi/2} \frac{\cos(\theta)}{\sin^2(\theta)}d\theta$.

This is a definite integral so we are looking for an area.

Since the function $f(\theta) = \frac{\cos(\theta)}{\sin^2(\theta)}$ is continuous on $\left[\frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{\pi}{2}\right]$, so by the FTCP2 we know that:

$$\int_{\pi/4}^{\pi/2} \frac{\cos(\theta)}{\sin^2(\theta)}d\theta = \int_{\pi/4}^{\pi/2} \frac{1}{\sin(\theta)} \cdot \frac{\cos(\theta)}{\sin(\theta)} \cdot d\theta = \int_{\pi/4}^{\pi/2} \csc(\theta)\cot(\theta)d\theta = -\csc(\theta)\Big|_{\pi/4}^{\pi/2} = -\csc\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) + \csc\left(\frac{\pi}{4}\right) = -1 + \sqrt{2}$$